

Leukemia Cell Classification Using Deep Learning Model

FYDP I Report

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Chapter 1

Introduction

1.1 Project Overview

Leukemia is a life threatening blood cancer which affects white blood cells of the bone marrow. That comes from uncontrolled production of white blood cells which interfere with our immune system to fight against infection & produce red blood cells. Leukemia needs early & accurate diagnosis to improve patient survival probability.

Traditional approach to the diagnosis leukemia by manual microscopic examination is time consuming & also highly dependent on pathologists expert which may lead to delay & some time error. This project is Leukemia Cell Classification Using Deep Learning Model, our aim is to develop an automated system for leukemia classification using medical image analysis.

Blood smear slides are collected from various hospitals then using a microscope with a high resolution camera to capture images from the slide. Medical experts label cells into three categories like healthy, Acute Lymphoblastic Leukemia (ALL), Acute Myeloid Leukemia (AML), Chronic Lymphocytic Leukemia (CLL), Chronic Myeloid Leukemia (CML). Then apply image preprocessing techniques for increasing the dataset. Then split dataset for training, validation & testing. Apply data augmentation technique for improving dataset diversity & reducing overfitting.

Resnet which is a Deep learning model is used for the ability to extract hierarchical features & learning complex cellular features. After training & testing, this system enhances diagnostics accuracy & efficiency in the real healthcare environment by automated detection of leukemia from microscope imaging.

1.2 Motivation

Leukemia is a hematological malignancy which occurs for the uncontrolled production of the abnormal white blood cells in the bone marrow and peripheral blood. According

to World Health Organization (WHO) which estimated that approximately 474,000 new cases and over 311,000 deaths occur annually just because of this type of blood cancer, leukemia. In a report by Blood Cancer United, it is estimated that around 66890 people were expected to be diagnosed with leukemia in 2025 in the USA. They also stated that around 475,323 people are living with it. AACR Cancer Progress Report 2025 says that 66,890 new cases and 23,540 deaths in the US because of this leukemia.

Early detection is very important because leukemia progress is very rapid. It creates variants and treatment loses its effectiveness. Early detection allows timely and specific treatment which improves survival rates, lowers mortality rates and reduces complications.

Manual or traditional detection is very time consuming and highly dependent on the hematologist's expertise. In early-stage symptoms and the changes or abnormalities are not visible or detected by the manual process. That is why the deep learning model can be effective to detect leukemia in the early stage by observing previous data.

1.3 Objectives

Main objective of our research is to develop a real time, automated, and reliable system by using deep learning architectures to classify leukemia subtypes (AML, ALL, CLL, CML) for microscopic blood smear images. The specific objectives of our research are:

- To develop an end-to-end automated leukemia classification framework based on deep learning techniques to minimize human error.
- To implement image preprocessing and synthetic data augmentation techniques to reduce class imbalance and improve model performance across diverse clinical datasets.
- To utilize Convolutional Neural Networks (CNN) for the automated extraction of high dimensional and discriminative features from the blood smear images which are often subtle to the human eye.
- To classify leukemia samples to specific subtypes (AML, ALL, CLL, CML) and separate them from normal blood samples with high accuracy.
- To validate performance of ResNet using standard evaluation including F1 scores, recall, accuracy, precision, and confusion matrix to ensure clinical reliability standards.
- To analyze the feasibility and effectiveness of AI-assisted leukemia classification as a secondary tool for early detection of leukemia.
- To support hematologists in the clinical decision making.

1.4 Methodology

This study aimed at developing and evaluating a deep learning based automated system for leukemia detection. The proposed approach focuses on classifying microscopic blood smear images into leukemia and non leukemia categories and into leukemia subtypes classification (AML, ALL, CML, CLL).

Dataset Description

We have collected a dataset from hospitals with proper rules and regulations. We collect PBF (Peripheral Blood Smear) slides and took microscopic images and then split dataset into

- Training Dataset: 70%
- Validation Dataset: 15%
- Test Dataset: 15%

We tried to create the dataset in a way that we can mitigate the datasets bias less.

Data Preprocessing:

In the Medical image processing this part is the most crucial part because it helps to enhance model performance.

1. Image Resizing: All image are resized to fixed resolution for match input requirements.
2. Noise Reduction: Techniques like Gaussian Blur are apply to minimize artifacts and enhance image clarity.
3. Normalization Pixel intensity value are normalized to a standard range, ensuring consistent feature representation across the dataset.
4. Data Augmentation apply to mitigate overfitting and class imbalance. Data augmentation techniques including rotation, flipping, zooming and adjustment are used.

Model Architecture

The proposed system is ResNet due to it effectiveness in medical image analysis. ResNet architecture consists of multiple convolutional layers for feature extraction.

1.5 Project Outcome

Our aims to develop a system that can automatically classify leukemia cells from blood smear image by using a deep learning model. This model will show high performance of accuracy, recall precision, & F1 score.

This approach reduces the need for manual diagnostic effort, improves consistency and speeds up the diagnostic process. The proposed solution increases accessibility for early detection of leukemia. Also, save time, improve diagnostic efficiency & give clinical support in healthcare environment.

Chapter 2

Background

2.1 Preliminaries

Here, establishes the foundational medical, computational, and mathematical concepts required for automated leukemia detection and classification.

2.1.1 Medical Foundations and Leukemia Taxonomy

Leukemia is a hematological disease by the abnormal production of White Blood Cells (WBC). These malignant cells originate in the bone marrow and interfere in the production of healthy blood cells.

Let

$$\mathcal{C} = \{c_1, c_2, \dots, c_K\}$$

denote the set of classes in this study, where $K=5$:

- c_1 (**Healthy**): Normal WBC morphology.
- c_2 (**ALL**) – Acute Lymphoblastic Leukemia. A first growing cancer of immature lymphoid cells called lymphoblasts in the bone marrow. Common in children but can affect adults. Symptoms: fatigue, infections, bone pain, bleeding and fever.
- c_3 (**AML**) - Acute Myeloid Leukemia. It's also a fast growing cancer of immature myeloid cells. More common in adults and elderly people. Symptoms: anemia, infection and bleeding.
- c_4 (**CLL**) – Chronic Lymphocytic Leukemia. A slow growing cancer of mature B-lymphocytes which mostly affects older adults. Symptoms: fatigue, weight loss.
- c_5 (**CML**) – Chronic Myeloid Leukemia. It's also a slow growing cancer of myeloid stem cells which linked the Philadelphia chromosome. Symptoms: fatigue, weight loss, enlarged spleen and night sweats.

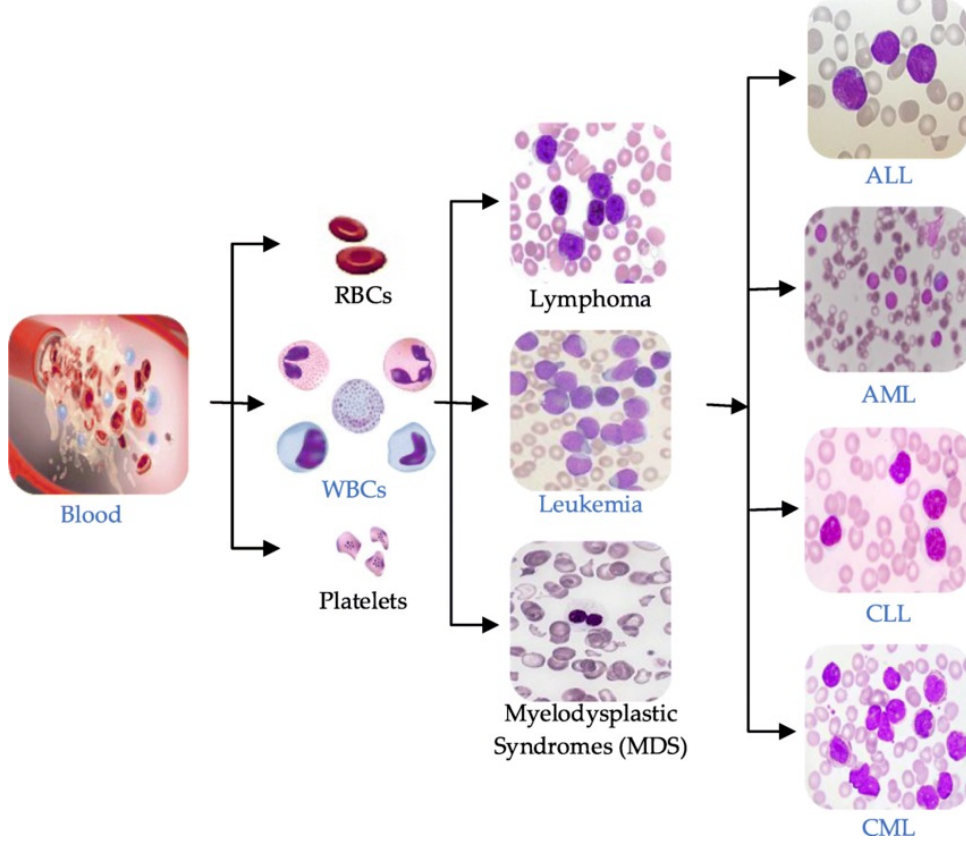


Figure 2.1: Subtype of Leukemia

Peripheral Blood Smear (PBS): PBS is the gold-standard diagnostic tool in which blood is spread on a glass slide and stained. It enables visual analysis of WBC morphology, including cell size, nuclear shape, and cytoplasmic texture.

2.1.2 Image Preprocessing and Data Preparation

To enhance data quality and ensure model compatibility, a transformation $T(\cdot)$ is applied to raw images

$$X \in \mathbb{R}^{H \times W \times 3}$$

such that:

$$X' = T(X)$$

Preprocessing: Includes resizing for fixed model input dimensions, Gaussian blur used for noise reduction and Contrast Limited Adaptive Histogram Equalization (CLAHE) to enhance nuclear details.

Data Augmentation: To mitigate overfitting in limited medical datasets, N synthetic samples are generated:

$$\tilde{X}_i = A_i(X), \quad i = 1, 2, \dots, N$$

where $A_i(\cdot)$ represents stochastic transformations like rotation, zooming and flipping.

Class Imbalance: Occurs when

$$N_{healthy} \gg N_{leukemia}$$

This imbalance is addressed using Synthetic Minority Over sampling Technique (SMOTE), oversampling randomly, or class weighting w_k in the loss function.

2.1.3 Machine Learning Framework

The framework employs Convolutional Neural Networks (CNN) for automated feature extraction. The output of l -th convolutional layer is given by:

$$\mathbf{F}^{(l)} = \sigma \left(\mathbf{W}^{(l)} * \mathbf{F}^{(l-1)} + \mathbf{b}^{(l)} \right)$$

where $*$ denotes convolution, $\sigma(\cdot)$ is an activation function, and $\mathbf{F}^{(l)}$ represents the feature map.

Hierarchical Learning: CNNs progressively learn low-level edge features and high-level morphological patterns relevant to leukemia detection.

Transfer Learning: Model parameters θ are initialized using pre-trained weights (e.g., ResNet or MobileNet):

$$\theta = \theta_{pretrained} + \Delta\theta$$

This accelerates convergence and improves generalization.

Explainable AI (XAI): Gradient weighted Class Activation Mapping (Grad-CAM) is used to generate heatmaps and highlighting regions of interest (ROI) that influence model prediction, enhancing clinical interpretability.

2.1.4 Loss Function and Performance Metrics

To address multi-class classification and class imbalance, the Weighted Categorical Cross-Entropy loss is used:

$$\mathcal{L} = - \sum_{k=1}^K w_k y_k \log(\hat{y}_k)$$

where y_k and $\hat{y}_k$ denote the ground truth and predicted probability for class k , respectively.

Model performance is evaluated using a confusion matrix comprising True Negatives (TN), True Positives (TP), False Negatives (FN) and False Positives (FP).

Metric	Formula	Description
Accuracy	$\frac{TP+TN}{TP+TN+FP+FN}$	Overall correctness
Precision	$\frac{TP}{TP+FP}$	Reliability of leukemia detection
Recall	$\frac{TP}{TP+FN}$	Sensitivity to leukemia cases
F1-score	$2 \cdot \frac{PR \cdot RE}{PR+RE}$	Balance between precision and recall
G-Mean	$\sqrt{Sensitivity \times Specificity}$	Performance on imbalanced data

Table 2.1: Performance Evaluation Metrics

2.1.5 Architecture Found

Support Vector Machine (SVM)

It's a supervised machine learning algorithm used for both Classification & Regression problem. It determine the best hyperplane that divide data points of different classes by maximizing the margin between them. The data sample which closest to the hyperplane are known as support vectors, and they play an important role in decision boundaries.

SVM works well in leukemia classification, and it has been successfully used in many research papers.

Why SVM is suitable for Leukemia Classification

1. High Dimensional Data handling - Leukemia datasets have many features & SVM performs very well in high dimensional space
2. Perform well with small dataset - Medical dataset is maximum time limited in size & SVM can achieve high accuracy with small data
3. Kernel Flexibility - RBF kernel – used for leukemia image based classification – Linear kernel – good for gene expression data
4. Good Generalization - By maximizing the margin, SVM can reduce overfitting which important for medical diagnosis
5. Already prove in Research performance for
 - ALL vs AML
 - Normal vs Leukemia cells
 - Leukemia sub type classification

SVM step for Leukemia classification

1. Input Data - Blood smear image or - Extracted feature like texture, shape, color of nucleus
2. Image preprocessing - Noise Remove - Data Augmentation - Feature Normalization - Segmentation of white blood cells

3. Feature Extraction - GLCM, HOG, LBP for feature extract from image - For deep feature extraction CNN+ SVM hybrid
4. SVM Classification - Used RBF kernel function
5. Evaluation - Accuracy, sensitivity - F1 score, Precision - Recall & confusion matrix

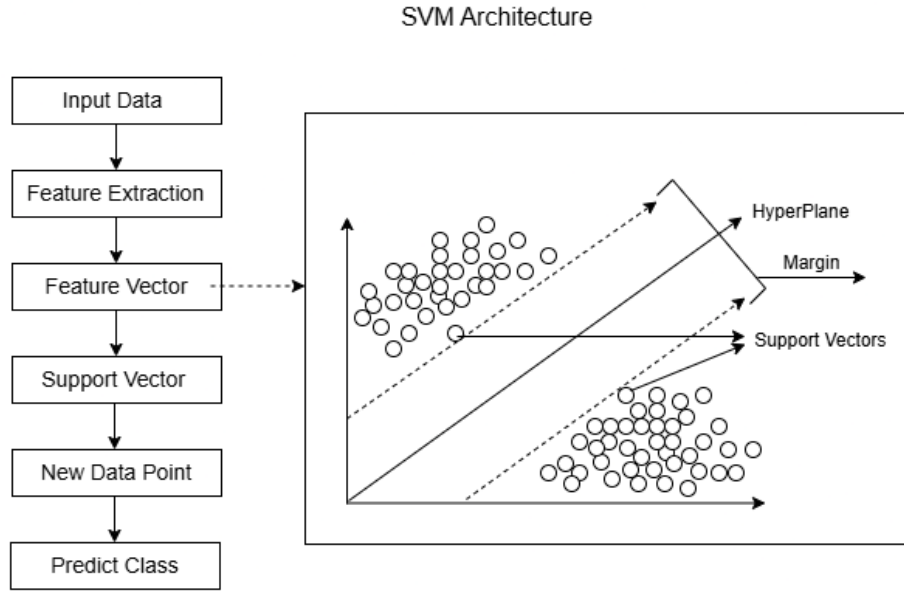


Figure 2.2: SVM Representation

Summary- SVM is good and effective for leukemia classification and detection, especially when the dataset is limited in size. With Proper feature extraction and RBF kernel function selection, SVM can achieve high classification accuracy in Leukemia detection and classification.

Convolutional Neural Networks (CNN)

CNNs are deep learning models specifically designed for image analysis. Since images are high-dimensional data, manual feature extraction is difficult. CNN address this challenge by automatically learning important visual features (edges, shapes, textures, and cells) directly from raw images. Below picture represents a typical

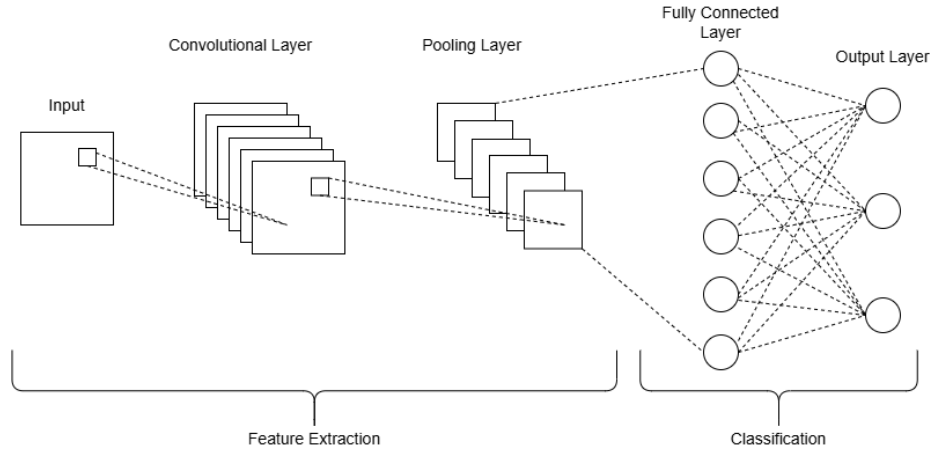


Figure 2.3: CNN Architecture

Convolutional Layers slide over images using small filters or kernels to capture specific feature or pattern such as edges, texture or little more complex structure in deeper layers. Pooling Layers are applied with convolutional layers are used to reduce the spatial dimension of the input which make it easier to process and requiring less memory while preserving the important information. Fully connected layers get high dimensional output from the previous layers and combine and integrate all the extracted features across the entire image instead of focusing only on local regions. Finally, output layer generate the predicted class probabilities. However, CNN are highly effective in medical image analysis because of their ability to learn complex visual patterns directly from raw images. This capability makes them suitable for automated leukemia detection and classification using microscopic blood smear images.

Decision Tree

It's a supervised learning algorithm commonly applied for classification and regression tasks. It represents the decision making processes by representing data in a tree like structure, where each internal node denotes test on a feature, each branch indicates the result of the that test and each leaf node provide the final class label or predicted value. Because of it's straightforward structure and easy interpretability, Decision Tree is commonly used as a baseline classifier in many research applications.

Decision Tree Architecture

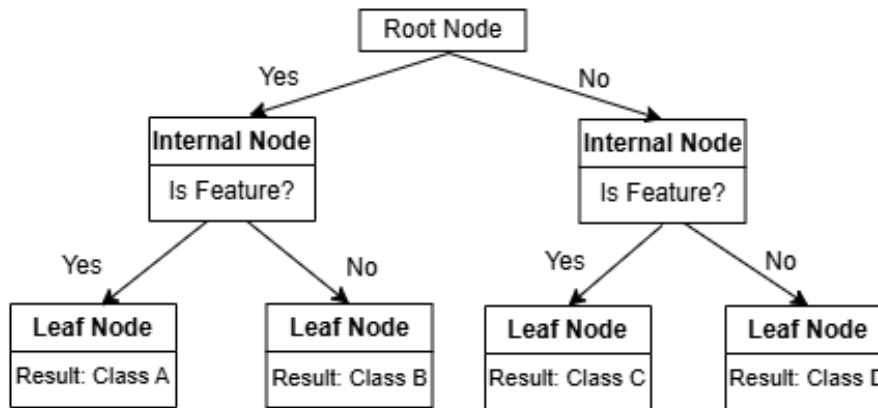


Figure 2.4: Decision Tree Architecture

Working Principle of Decision Tree: It works by repeatedly dividing the dataset into smaller groups based on feature values. At every node, it selects the feature that best separates the data into different classes. The choice is guided by Entropy and Information Gain. The division process continues until a stopping condition is satisfied, like reaching a maximum depth or having pure leaf nodes.

Decision Tree in Image Classification: In image classification tasks, raw images are usually converted into feature vectors using feature extraction techniques such as texture, shape, or color descriptors. All the extracted features are then provided as input to the Decision Tree classifier. The model learns decision rules that help distinguish between different image classes based on these features.

Random Forest

It's a machine learning model based on an ensemble of multiple decision trees to make better predictions. It improves prediction accuracy and reduces error by combining many trees, each with different criteria. Each tree is built using random subsets of the data. Their predictions are combined through voting for classification and averaging for regression, which makes it an ensemble method.

Decision trees are helpful, but they can be prone to problems. These problems include:

1. **Bias:** This occurs when a degree of error is introduced into the model, often because the instance space isn't evenly split during training, meaning the model might not see all data points. Example-Imagine we are trying to learn about different types of fruits but only ever look at apples. If we then try to identify a banana, we'd be very biased towards saying it's an apple because that's all we've seen. This "only

looking at apples” is like unevenly splitting instance space during training our model is only seeing a limited or skewed part of the overall data. Random Forest solves reducing bias by creating many decision trees. Every tree is trained on a different and random subset of main dataset. So, instead of just one learner seeing only apples- One tree might see apples and oranges. Another might see bananas and grapes. A third might see a mix of everything, but in a different order.

2. Variance: it happen when model become more sensitive to fluctuations in the training data, causing it to fit noise instead of the actual underlying pattern.
3. Overfitting: This happens when model start to memorize the data rather than trying to generalize for making predictions on future data. Example: Imagine studying for a test. Just memorize every single question and answer from a practice test Instead of understanding the concepts.
4. Training Data (Practice Test): When it takes the practice test again, it scores perfectly because it memorized all the answers.
5. New Data (Real Test): When it takes the actual test, the questions are slightly different, or phrased in a new way. Because it only memorized answers and didn't learn the underlying concepts, it performs poorly on the real test.

Random Forests common solutions to overfitting in machine learning-

1. Data-Based Solutions:

Collecting More Data: The most effective method, as a larger dataset makes it harder for the model to memorize specific noise.

Data Augmentation: Expending the original dataset by generating modified copies of existing data (e.g., rotating images, adding noise).

Feature Selection/Reduction: Eliminating unnecessary or repetitive features that may negatively affect the model.

Cleaning Data: Removing outliers or errors from the training set.

2. Model-Based Solutions:

Reducing Model Complexity: Simplifying the model's architecture by using fewer layers or neurons in neural networks.

Regularization: Add penalties terms into the loss function to limit excessive model complexity (e.g., L1/L2 regularization).

Dropout: In neural networks, randomly turning off a portion of neurons during training to reduce dependency on specific connections.

3. Training-Based Solutions:

Cross-Validation: Evaluating the performance of model on multiple subsets of the dataset to ensure its robustness and generalization ability.

Early Stopping: Observing the performance of model on a separate validation set and stopping the training process when performance on this set begin to decline, even if the training error is still decreasing.

Hyperparameter Tuning: Systematically finding the optimal settings for model parameters that balance complexity and fit.

When to use Random Forest:

1. **Complex Data:** Large datasets with many features (high-dimensional data).
2. **High Accuracy Robustness:** When a model required that is less likely to overfit compared to a single decision tree, providing better generalization.
3. **Classification Regression:** Works for predicting categories (spam detection, disease diagnosis) and numerical values (stock prices, customer satisfaction).
4. **Non-linear Patterns:** Good at capturing complex relationships in data where trends aren't strictly linear.
5. **Feature Importance:** Useful for identifying key features in data, though caution is needed with correlated features.
6. **Handling Missing Data:** Can effectively estimate missing values.

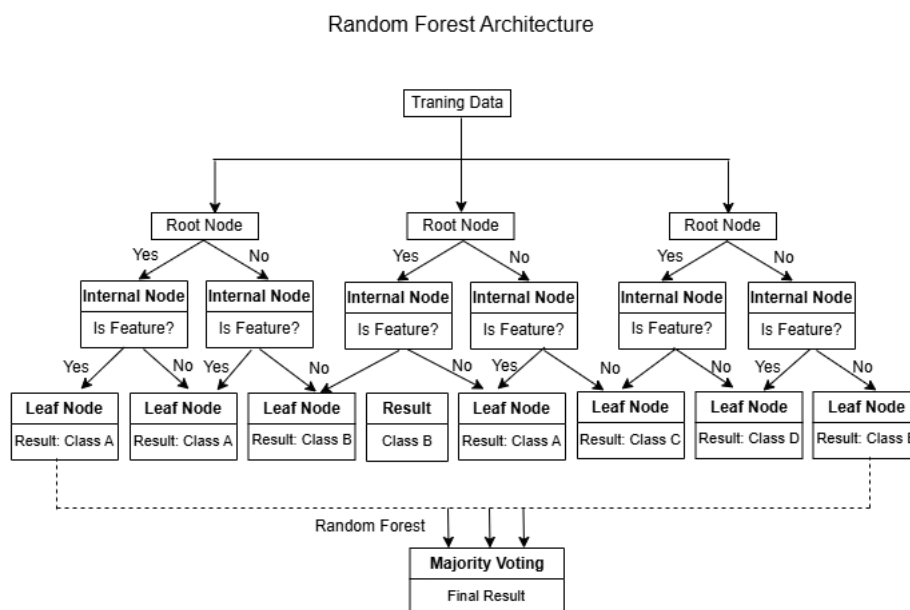


Figure 2.5: Random Forest Architecture

Random Forests reduce these problems by averaging multiple decision trees, which lowers variance and improves robustness.

2.1.6 K-Nearest Neighbors(KNN)

KNN algorithm is a straightforward, non-parametric, supervised learning model used for classification and regression tasks. It predicts the label of a new data point based on the labels of its nearest neighbors.

How the KNN Algorithm Works The core idea of KNN is that similar data points are located near one another. To classify or predict a new data point, the model follows these steps:

1. Choose the number of neighbors (K): Select a positive integer value for K. It suggested to choose an odd number for K for binary classification to prevent ties.
2. Compute distance: Measure the distance between the new data point and all existing data points in the dataset using metrics like Euclidean distance and Manhattan distance.
3. Identify the K nearest neighbors: Selects the K data points that are closest to the new point.
4. Assign a class (or value):
 - (a) For classification: The new data point is assigned to the class that appears most frequently among its K neighbors (majority vote).
 - (b) For regression: Predicted value is calculated as the average (or weighted average) of the values of the K nearest neighbors.

Key Characteristics

- Supervised Learning: KNN need a labeled dataset to train on.
- Non-Parametric: It does not assume any specific distribution for the data.
- Lazy Learner (Instance-Based): KNN does not build a model during training. It stores the dataset and performs calculation only when making prediction.

Applications

KNN is a versatile algorithm used in various fields:

- Recommendation Systems: Companies like Netflix and Amazon use it to suggest products or movies based on similar users' preferences.
- Healthcare: It can be used in predicting health risks like heart attacks or cancer based on gene expressions.
- Finance: It helps with stock market forecasting and fraud detection.

- Image Recognition: It is used in handwriting and image recognition tasks.

Limitations

Despite its simplicity, KNN has drawbacks:

- Computational Cost: As a lazy learner, storing all data points makes it memory-intensive and computationally expensive for large datasets.
- Curse of Dimensionality: The performance of KNN decreases in high-dimensional spaces where distance calculations become less reliable.
- Feature Scaling: KNN is sensitive to the scale feature, so its important to scale all feature to ensure each one contributes equally to the distance calculation.

2.2 Literature Review

2.2.1 Related Work

Automated leukemia detection and classification from microscopic blood smear images has been widely studied using traditional machine learning and more recently deep learning techniques. Early research mainly focused on manual feature extraction combined with classical classifiers, while recent studies strengthen deep CNN and transfer learning to improve accuracy and robustness.

Multiple review based studies establish the medical necessity for automated leukemia diagnosis. Comprehensive reviews on ALL highlight that traditional diagnostic methods like manual microscopy are labor intensive and mostly can happen human errors. These studies didn't gave any model or report accuracy metrics but identified diagnostic inconsistencies as major bottlenecks.

Computational approaches relied on handcrafted features such as cell size, shape, color, texture etc. Studies using multi layer perceptrons trained with algorithms such as Bayesian Regularizations achieved almost 95% accuracy on binary classifications. But they need professional equipment and large investment for that research. Other works applied classifiers like SVM, K-NN, Naive Bayes and DT on extract feature. They achieve quite a good result but they struggled with class imbalance, feature sensitivity and multi class leukemia classification.

Deep learning for leukemia classification:

Most common deep learning model used in leukemia detection is CNN. By using datasets like ALL-IDB and ASH Image Bank, CNN-based models achieved almost 88% accuracy for binary classification and 81–82% accuracy for multi-class classification. These models use image preprocessing steps such as resizing, normalization, and contrast enhancement and automatic feature extraction through convolutional layers.

Handling Imbalance data overfitting and underfitting Imbalance dataset is a common problem in leukemia detection because most of the time abnormal cells are not identified or labeled. In some papers they used so many techniques to overcome this problem like SMOTE, under sampling and extensive data augmentation. Noise-filtered under sampling approaches improved minority-class recognition by enhancing F-measure and G-Mean, though they did not directly focus on deep learning models. More recent deep learning approaches tackle imbalance at the loss-function level. weighted loss functions, regularization, and dropout are some techniques used in different papers. These techniques reduce model bias toward majority classes.

2.2.2 Key Findings & Gap Analysis

Area	Key Findings	Tools and Techniques Used	Gap	Proposed tion
Medical image-based detection of Acute Lymphoblastic Leukemia	MobileNetV2 achieved 99.69%, CNN 98.6%. SMOTE handled imbalance.	Dataset: ALL image dataset. Models: MobileNetV2, Custom CNN. Data augmentation.	Limited dataset, focused only on ALL, static dataset testing.	Collect multi-hospital dataset. Classify all subtypes.
Image analysis for detecting leukemia subtypes	CNN: 88% (ALL), 81% (multiclass). CNN better than traditional ML.	Datasets: ALL-IDB, ASH Image Bank. OpenCV, Keras. SGD, Adam. 5-fold CV.	Small dataset, multiclass lower accuracy, augmentation noise.	Collect dataset. Apply data augmentation. Apply deep models.
Biomedical image analysis for leukemia detection	MLP(BR): 94.51%, MLP(LM): 94.39%. 32 features best result.	Dataset: 800 images. Feed-forward MLP. Preprocessing. BR, LM algorithms.	Small dataset, single hidden layer, manual microscopy error.	Use deeper data augmentation. Improve feature selection.
Microscope image analysis using deep learning	Optimized CNN: 96% accuracy. Better than ResNet50 and YOLOv8.	3256 PBS images. Deep CNN (13 conv layers). Data augmentation.	Overfitting, black-box problem, limited to ALL & AML.	Collect more data. Use better optimizer. Apply automatic augmentation.
Biomedical image classification using ResNet	ResNet better than CNN on large datasets. Transfer learning effective.	Datasets: ImageNet, COCO, Kinetics-400. ResNet, SGD, augmentation.	Ethical issues, high memory demand, limited attention mechanisms.	Add attention modules. Monitor efficiency. Optimize architecture. Improve detection w
Computer-aided classification into FAB subtype	PCA NN achieved 86.4%. Good multi-class performance.	180 images. PCA-based NN. Preprocessing, feature extraction.	Small dataset, no augmentation, no DL methods.	Expand dataset. Use augmentation. Cross-validate deep models.
Cell classification using Deep CNN	ConvNet: 98.3%, AUC 0.99. Robust to translation error.	Herlev, HEMLBC datasets. Pretrained ConvNet. 5-fold CV.	Slow inference, limited labeled data.	Use Fully Convolutional automatic translation. Train on diverse cell

Area	Key Findings	Tools and Techniques Used	Gap	Proposed tion
Systematic description of leukemia & CAD	Highlights need for automation in diagnosis.	Medical imaging, CAD framework. Literature review.	No validation metrics. Focused more on medical side.	Develop CAD Promote clinical research
WBC classification using CNN	90% accuracy. Robust to noise.	CNN with preprocessing. Automatic feature learning.	Focused only on WBC, not leukemia subtype.	Extend model to classify leukemia subtypes.
Data enhancement with ResNet	Accuracy: 95%, F1: 93%. Effective multi-class classification.	Expert labeling. Preprocessing (CLAHE, resizing). Transfer learning.	Limited dataset, no multi-center validation.	Collect multi-center data. Advanced validation.
Noise filtration under-sampling	Improved F-measure and G-Mean.	Nearest neighbor filtering, distance-based under-sampling.	No deep learning. No subtype classification.	Apply deep learning model for leukemia classification.
Comparative evaluation of DL models	90% accuracy with imbalance handling.	DCNN, weighted loss, dropout, regularization.	No novel model proposed.	Optimize model selection for leukemia classification.
Loss function enhancement	98.92% accuracy with faster convergence.	Deep learning with optimized loss function.	Indirect leukemia detection. Focused on WBC.	Extend model to loss for leukemia subtype classification.
ALL Segmentation using Dual Threshold	Improved ALL cell identification.	SVM, ANN, K-means, FCM.	No deep learning, small dataset.	Use deep learning with larger dataset.
CAD system for leukemia detection	89.8% accuracy with combined features.	GLCM, SVM, texture + shape features.	Limited accuracy, no deep learning.	Combine model with deep learning model.
Computer-Based Leukemia Diagnosis	KNN best accuracy 86%.	260 images. KNN, DT, SVM, Naive Bayes.	Small, low diversity dataset.	Collect larger dataset. advanced learning model.
Leukemia subtype detection using CNN	88.25% (binary), 82% (multiclass).	ALL-IDB, ASH Image Bank. OpenCV, Keras. SGD, Adam.	Binary better than multiclass. Model optimization needed.	Hybrid deep learning for better multiclass accuracy.

Area	Key Findings	Tools and Techniques Used	Gap	Proposed tion
Classification of leukemia cell by CNN	96.6% accuracy for binary classification.	ALL-IDB1 dataset. MATLAB implementation.	Focused only on ALL. Limited real-world validation.	Optimize Validate on data.
SVM for cancer tissue classification	SVM effective for cancer classification.	SVM, jackknife CV, dimensionality reduction.	Struggles with high-feature samples.	Develop atic SVM method.
Unintentional leukemia detection with CBC	Incidental detection risk of overdiagnosis.	CBC, clinical decision aids.	No systematic screening recommendations.	Implement tive sur protocols.
Computer Vision & GANs	GAN enables image translation.	CycleGAN, PatchGAN, consistency loss.	Poor geometric transformation handling.	Hybrid su + GAN fra
Spatial & technical data processing	Deep networks improve performance.	Multi-scale training, 3x3 filters, 1x1 conv.	High computational cost.	Optimize depth. computation
Deep learning for leukemia detection	Hybrid model achieved 97.04% accuracy.	Hybrid CNN + CCA + Bagging. SVM, KNN.	Small dataset.	Use parall hybrid app
Hybrid approach for ALL classification	ResNet50, SVM, RF best performance.	ResNet152, VGG16, DenseNet121, MobileNetV2, EfficientNet.	Insufficient data for deep learning. Manual detection slow.	Use hybri feature s approach.

2.3 Summary

From all these previous works, we identified some gaps in leukemia classification where mostly used CNNs and transfer learning, here main problem is small data set and single-centered and mostly focus on limited subtype like AML, ALL. Here they faced some common problems like class imbalance, overfitting and lack of pathological validation. Though Resnet based models work better than CNNs, some of them used them without attention mechanisms and robust imbalance handling. In our research we will try to mitigate these problems where we will enhance the Resnet model, data augmentation, handle class imbalance and overfitting and mainly we will label it by the Expert pathologist. This approach aims to improve multi class leukemia classification with more reliability and accuracy.

Chapter 3

Project Design

3.1 Requirement Analysis

Main objective of our project is classifying leukemia cells from microscopic blood smear images using deep learning model techniques. We are working to classify healthy, Acute Lymphoblastic Leukemia (ALL), Acute Myeloid Leukemia (AML), Chronic Lymphocytic Leukemia(CLL), Chronic Myeloid Leukemia(CML) cells to support early detection of diagnosis.

3.1.1 Functional Requirements

[leftmargin=1.25cm]

1. We need blood smear slides from various hospitals & capture high quality microscope images from blood smear cells as input.
2. Need a medical expert to labeled image into 3 categories healthy, ALL & AML cells
3. Then apply image preprocessing steps like resizing, noise detection & remove, normalization & contrast enhancement.
4. Apply data augmentation techniques to increase dataset because dataset is limited.
5. Then apply a deep learning model like ResNet, SVM, Decision Tree, KNN & Random Forest for feature extraction and classification of leukemia. We will get output from this model like accuracy, precision, recall, & F1 score.

3.1.2 Non-Functional Requirements

We need to achieve high classification accuracy above 90% on unseen data. For run medical dataset we need a standard GPU-enable system for

3.2 Methodology

3.2.1 ResNet using Feynman Path Integral

This section presents a physics-inspired interpretation of ResNet using the Feynman path integral formulation. Instead of viewing ResNet as a simple stack of nonlinear layers, we interpret it as a superposition of exponentially many computational paths, each associated with an energy functional.

Residual Learning as a Discrete Dynamical System

A standard residual block updates the feature representation as:

$$u(x, t + 1) = u(x, t) + F(u(x, t); W_t) \quad (3.1)$$

where $u(x, t)$ denotes the feature map at depth t , $F(\cdot)$ represents the residual mapping, and W_t are the learnable parameters of the t -th block.

In practical architectures, the residual mapping is defined as:

$$F(u_t) = W_{2,t}\sigma(W_{1,t}u_t) \quad (3.2)$$

where σ denotes a nonlinear activation function (e.g., ReLU).

This formulation can be interpreted as a forward Euler discretization of:

$$\frac{\partial u}{\partial t} = F(u, t) \quad (3.3)$$

Thus, network depth corresponds to discrete time evolution of a dynamical system.

Network Architecture

The architecture follows a standard deep residual design with skip connections.

Input Stage

- Initial convolution (7×7 , stride 2)
- Batch Normalization
- ReLU activation
- Max pooling

Residual Stages A typical configuration is shown in Table 3.1.

Table 3.1: ResNet Architecture Configuration		
Stage	Number of Blocks	Output Channels
Stage 1	3	64
Stage 2	4	128
Stage 3	6	256
Stage 4	3	512

Each residual block consists of:

1. Convolution (3×3)
2. Batch Normalization
3. ReLU
4. Convolution (3×3)
5. Batch Normalization
6. Identity skip connection
7. Element-wise addition
8. ReLU activation

Path Integral Interpretation

Due to skip connections, information can propagate through multiple combinations of identity and residual mappings.

For a network with N residual blocks, each block has two transitions:

- Identity (skip path)
- Residual transformation

Thus, the total number of possible computational paths is:

$$2^N \tag{3.4}$$

Each path p can be represented as:

$$p = (s_1, s_2, \dots, s_N) \tag{3.5}$$

where

$$s_t = \{ 1 \text{ identity path } F_t \text{ residual path} \} \quad (3.6)$$

The contribution of a specific path is:

$$u_{path} = u_0 \prod_{t=1}^N s_t \quad (3.7)$$

Therefore, the final output becomes:

$$u(x_N) = \sum_{p \in \mathcal{P}} u_0 \prod_{t=1}^N s_t \quad (3.8)$$

Hamiltonian and Energy Functional

To incorporate the physics-based interpretation, an energy (Hamiltonian) is assigned to each path:

$$H(p) = \frac{1}{2}(\sigma^2 p^2 - ibp - c) \quad (3.9)$$

where:

- p represents path momentum,
- σ^2 is the diffusion coefficient,
- b is a drift parameter,
- c is a potential term.

The action of a path is defined as:

$$S_{path} = \sum_{t=1}^N H(p_t) \quad (3.10)$$

The final output using the Feynman formulation is:

$$u(x_N) = \sum_{paths} e^{-S_{path}} u(x_0) \quad (3.11)$$

Paths with lower action contribute more significantly to the final representation.

Energy-Regularized Training Objective

An energy-based regularization term can be introduced into the loss:

$$\mathcal{L}_{total} = \mathcal{L}_{task} + \lambda \sum_{paths} S_{path} \quad (3.12)$$

Alternatively, energy scaling can be integrated into each residual update:

$$u_{t+1} = u_t + \alpha_t F(u_t) \quad (3.13)$$

where

$$\alpha_t = e^{-H_t} \quad (3.14)$$

Continuous-Time Interpretation

As the network depth increases, the model approaches a continuous-time limit:

$$\frac{\partial u}{\partial t} = \sigma^2 \Delta u + b \nabla u - cu \quad (3.15)$$

This establishes a theoretical connection between deep residual networks and diffusion-based dynamical systems.

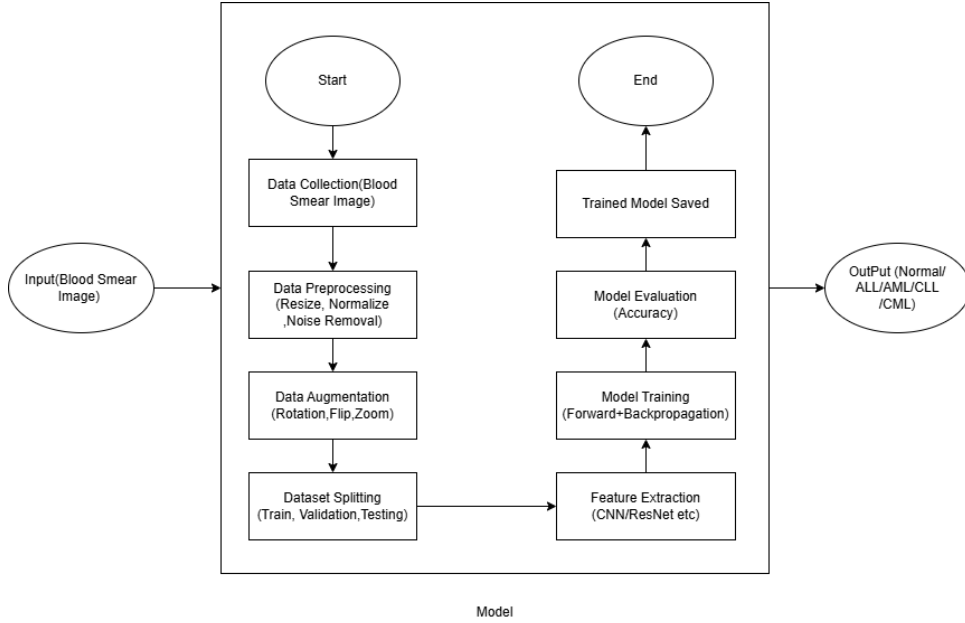


Figure 3.1: Working Flowchart

3.3 Summary

This Chapter describes the methodology and design of leukemia cell classification using deep learning models. This proposal needs high quality microscope image, expert labeling and preprocessing techniques such as noise removal, data augmentation and normalization. Also need both functional and non functional requirements for higher accuracy.

Some models are discussed including SVM, ResNet, CNN, Decision Tree, Random Forrest and KNN. SVM is suitable for small and high dimensional datasets. But ResNet

and CNN can extract deep and features from images. Decision tree and Random Forest give interpretable and robust classification and KNN classify data on similarity.

Chapter 5

Standards and Design Constraints

5.1 Standards Compliance

In this project, we developed a deep learning based leukemia classification system using blood smear microscopic images. Since this system is related to medical diagnosis, maintaining proper standards is very important. We followed both academic research standards and software engineering standards during the development process.

First, we followed a standard machine learning development pipeline. This includes data collection, preprocessing, model selection, training, validation, testing, and performance evaluation. This structured approach helps to ensure that the system is reliable and reproducible.

For evaluating the model performance, we used internationally accepted performance metrics such as Accuracy, Recall, F1-score, Precision and Confusion Matrix. These metrics are commonly used in medical image classification research.

We also followed ethical research standards. No personal patient identity was included in the dataset. The images were used only for research and educational purposes. Our system is designed as a decision-support tool for doctors, not as a replacement for professional medical diagnosis.

We also maintained proper documentation of dataset preprocessing steps, model parameters, and training procedures so that the work can be verified and improved in the future.

5.2 Design Constraints

While developing this project, we faced several real-world constraints. These constraints influenced our system design decisions.

5.2.1 Economic Constraint

One of the major constraints was financial limitation. Deep learning models such as ResNet require high computational resources, especially GPU-based systems. High-performance GPUs and cloud computing platforms are expensive.

As undergraduate students, we did not have access to advanced hardware systems. Therefore, we used transfer learning with pretrained ResNet instead of training a deep network from start. This approach reduce the computational cost and training time.

Medical data collection is also expensive. Preparing blood smear slides, capturing microscopic images, and labeling by expert pathologists require laboratory facilities and professional support. Due to limited funding, we used publicly available leukemia datasets.

5.2.2 Technical Constraint

The dataset size was limited compared to real hospital-level data. Limited data increases the risk of overfitting in deep learning models.

Another technical constraint was class imbalance in leukemia subtypes. Some classes had fewer images than others, which can affect model performance.

To handle these problems, we applied data augmentation techniques such as rotation, zooming and flipping. We also used dropout and regularization techniques to reduce overfitting.

5.2.3 Environmental Constraint

Training deep neural networks consumes significant electrical energy. Long training hours increase energy usage and carbon footprint.

To minimize environmental impact, we:

- Used pretrained models instead of full training
- Limited number of training epochs
- Applied early stopping technique
- Optimized batch size

These steps helped reduce unnecessary power consumption.

5.2.4 Ethical and Health Constraint

Since the system works in a medical domain, incorrect classification may cause serious health risks. A wrong prediction may delay treatment or create mental stress for patients.

Therefore, we carefully validated the model using multiple evaluation metrics. We also emphasize that this system should assist doctors, not replace them.

Patient privacy and data confidentiality were strictly maintained throughout the project.

5.3 Sustainability and Social Impact

This project has significant social importance, especially in developing countries like Bangladesh where expert hematologists are limited.

Manual blood smear analysis is time-consuming and requires experienced specialists. In rural areas, access to such specialists is limited. Our automated classification system can assist doctors by providing faster preliminary results.

In terms of sustainability, the system is scalable and can be improved in future. For example:

- The dataset size can be expanded using hospital collaborations.
- More leukemia subtypes can be added.
- Attention mechanisms and advanced architectures can be integrated.
- This system can be made as a web based or cloud based application.

This makes the project sustainable for long-term research and practical implementation.

5.4 Complex Engineering Problem

According to engineering accreditation guidelines, a complex engineering problem involves advanced knowledge, multiple interacting components, uncertainty, and analytical decision-making. Our leukemia classification system fits this definition.

5.4.1 Nature of Complexity

Leukemia cell classification is complex because:

- AML and ALL cells have very small visual differences under microscope.
- Blood smear images are high-dimensional data.
- Multi-class classification increases difficulty.
- Dataset imbalance creates biased learning.

- Overfitting risk is high due to limited dataset.

The system requires integration of medical knowledge, image processing, machine learning, and software engineering principles.

5.4.2 Engineering Activities Performed

To solve this complex problem, we performed several engineering tasks:

- Image preprocessing (resizing, normalization, noise reduction)
- Data augmentation
- Comparative analysis of SVM, CNN, Random Forest, KNN, and ResNet
- Implementation of transfer learning using pretrained ResNet
- Hyperparameter tuning
- Model evaluation using standard performance metrics

The project required analytical thinking, experimentation, optimization, and validation. Therefore, it can be considered a true complex engineering problem suitable for a Final Year Design Project.